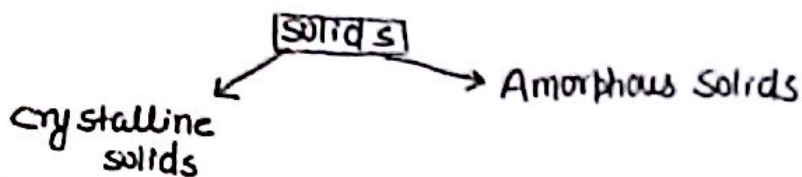


Ques. specifying the type of solids. How many types of crystal structure are there? Explain briefly lattice for cubic crystals! ①

Types of Solids:-



Crystalline Solids: $\Rightarrow$ Crystalline solids are arranged in fixed geometric patterns or Lattices. They have orderly arranged units and are practically incompressible. Crystalline solids also show a definite melting point and so they pass rather sharply from solid to liquid state. The crystals are characterised by having a long range period in their st. and thus gives the symmetry to the external st. for example:- Quartz, Silver, Cu, Au, Tourmaline.

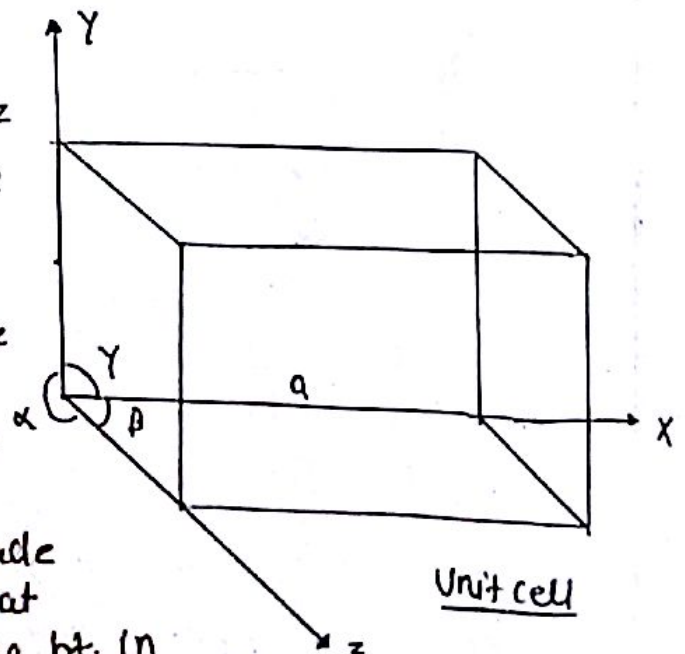
Amorphous Solids: $\Rightarrow$ A solid which lacks regularity in the arrangement of constituent particles are called Amorphous solids. It means the pattern of its constituents atoms or molecules does not repeat periodically in the 3-D. Amorphous solids have short range order. for example: glass, rubber, plastic, concrete.

Unit cell: $\Rightarrow$ The smallest portion of space lattice which can generate the complete crystal by repeating its own dimension in various directions is called a unit cell.

Space Lattice: $\Rightarrow$ A crystal such as rock salt, calcite, Quartz diamond etc is a solid composed of geometrically regular arrangement of atoms, ions & molecules in the space. When it is broken into pieces, all pieces have the same shape with same angle b/w the corresponding faces. These angles are characteristics of the given crystal.

Bravais assumed that a crystal is made up of 3-D array of points such that each point is surrounded by neighbouring pt. in an identical way. Such an array of pt in 3-D is called Space Lattice or Bravais Lattice.

hence Space Lattice is regular periodic arrangement of points extended repeatedly in space.



Types of crystal: $\Rightarrow$ All crystals are classified into seven crystal system on the basis of the shape of the unit cells. Bravais in 1948 explained that there are fourteen different types of crystal lattice under the seven crystal system. These seven basic system are distinguish from one another by their axial ratio a, b, c & the angles b/w them. These angles are α, β and γ .

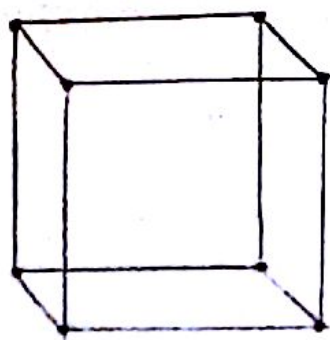
No.	Name of crystal	Relation in side	Angles	No. of possible Lattice	Example
	Cubic	$a=b=c$	$\alpha=\beta=\gamma=90^\circ$	3 (P, F, I)	NaCl NiSO ₄
	Tetragonal	$a=b \neq c$	$\alpha=\beta=\gamma=90^\circ$	2 (P, I)	
	Orthorhombic	$a \neq b \neq c$	$\alpha=\beta=\gamma=90^\circ$	4 (P, C, F, I)	KNO ₃
	Monoclinic	$a \neq b \neq c$	$\alpha=\beta=90^\circ \neq \gamma$	2 (P, C)	FeSO ₄
	Triclinic	$a \neq b \neq c$	$\alpha \neq \beta \neq \gamma \neq 90^\circ$	1 (P)	
	Trigonal	$a=b=c$	$\alpha=\beta=\gamma \neq 90^\circ$	1 (R)	CaSO ₄
	Hexagonal	$a=b \neq c$	$\alpha=\beta=90^\circ, \gamma=120^\circ$	1 (P)	Quartz

P $\rightarrow$ Primitive, R-Rhombohedral, C=Base centered, I=Body centered, F=Face centered.

Cubic: $\Rightarrow$ The cubic crystal have all sides are same and angles are 90° . It is divided into three subtypes

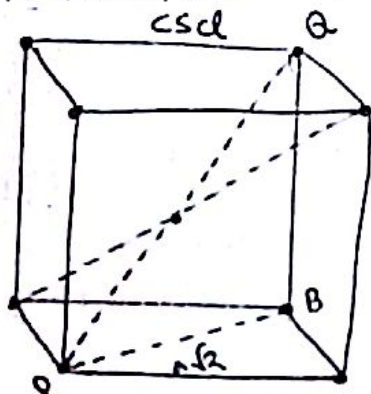
SCC $\rightarrow$ Simple cubic crystal: (i) BCC $\rightarrow$ Base centered cubic (ii) FCC

$\therefore$ NH₄Cl, Pure Na, Li, Cr

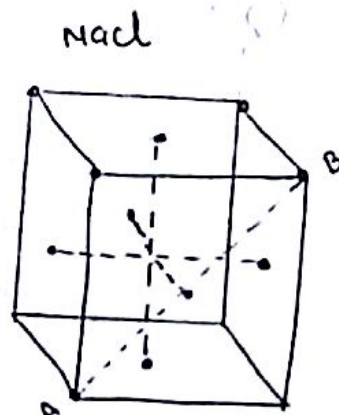


Contribution of the corner atom to the unit cell = $\frac{1}{8}$
 Total no. of corner atoms = 8
 Total contribution = $\frac{1}{8} \times 8 = 1$

In simple c.c. lattice there is only one atom or molecule or ion per unit cell.



$$\Rightarrow \text{Total atom} = \frac{1}{8} \times 8 + 1 = 2$$



$$\Rightarrow \text{Total atom} = \frac{1}{8} \times 8 + \frac{1}{2} \times 6 = 1 + 3 = 4$$

⇒ Co-ordination no = Total atom present in nearest neighbouring atom

⇒ SCC

→ C.N = 6

$(\pm a, 0, 0)$ $(0, \pm a, 0)$ $(0, 0, \pm a)$

⇒ Distance b/w nearest neighbouring atom(s) =

$$2r = a$$

$$\Rightarrow \boxed{r = \frac{a}{2}}$$

⇒ BCC

→ C.N = 8

$\pm \frac{a}{2} i, \pm \frac{a}{2} j, \pm \frac{a}{2} k$

$(\frac{a}{2}, \frac{a}{2}, \frac{a}{2})$ $(\frac{a}{2}, \frac{a}{2}, -\frac{a}{2})$

$(\frac{a}{2}, -\frac{a}{2}, \frac{a}{2})$ $(\frac{a}{2}, -\frac{a}{2}, -\frac{a}{2})$

$(-\frac{a}{2}, \frac{a}{2}, \frac{a}{2})$ $(-\frac{a}{2}, \frac{a}{2}, -\frac{a}{2})$

$(-\frac{a}{2}, -\frac{a}{2}, \frac{a}{2})$ $(-\frac{a}{2}, -\frac{a}{2}, -\frac{a}{2})$

$$\Rightarrow PQ = \sqrt{(a\sqrt{2})^2 + a^2}$$

$$PQ^2 = 3a^2$$

$$(r + 2r + r)^2 = 3a^2$$

$$(4r)^2 = 3a^2$$

$$4r = \sqrt{3}a$$

$$\Rightarrow \boxed{r = \frac{\sqrt{3}a}{4}}$$

⇒ FCC

→ C.N = 12

$(\pm \frac{a}{2} i \pm \frac{a}{2} j, \pm \frac{a}{2} j \pm \frac{a}{2} k, \pm \frac{a}{2} k \pm \frac{a}{2} i)$

$$\Rightarrow AB = a\sqrt{2}$$

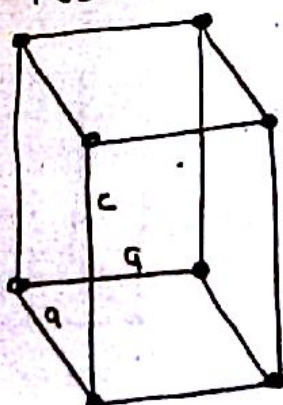
$$r + 2r + r = a\sqrt{2}$$

$$4r = a\sqrt{2}$$

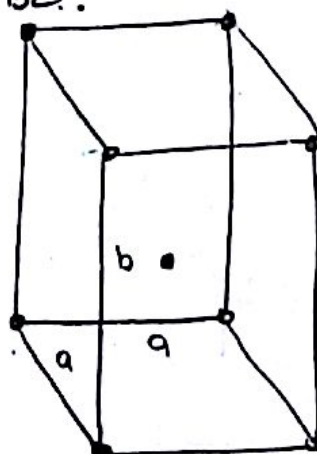
$$\Rightarrow \boxed{r = \frac{a}{2\sqrt{2}}}$$

(i) Tetragonal crystals: ⇒ These crystal have 2 sides are equal and all angles are equal. This crystal divided into 2 subtypes

(i) Primitive

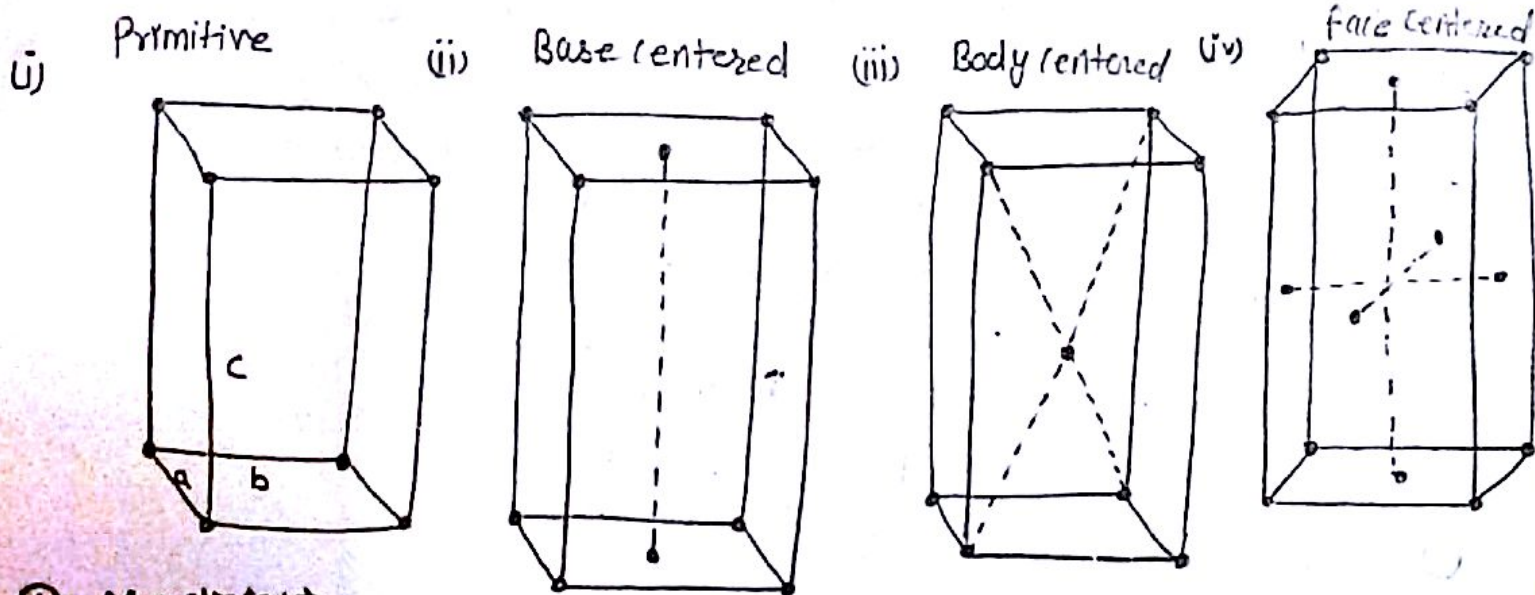


(ii) B.C.



(ii) Orthorhombic crystals: ⇒

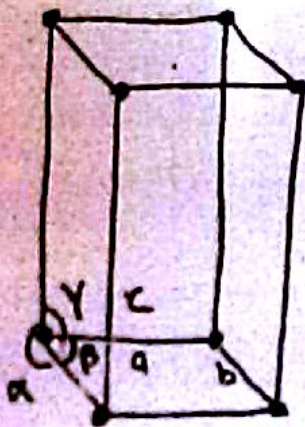
This crystals have all the side of different length but all the angles are 90°. This crystals are divided into 4 subtypes.



④ Monoclinic: $\Rightarrow$

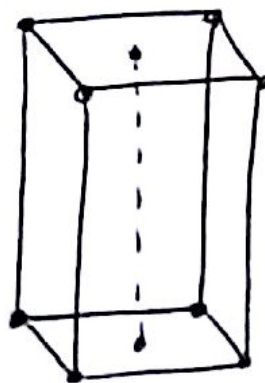
Monoclinic crystal have all side are different in length but 2, angles are 90° and one angles are does not equal to 90° .
 These have two subtypes: ex- badium Borate

(i) Primitive



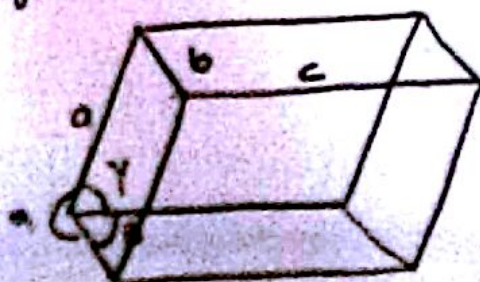
$$\alpha = \gamma = 90^\circ \neq \beta$$

(ii) Base centered



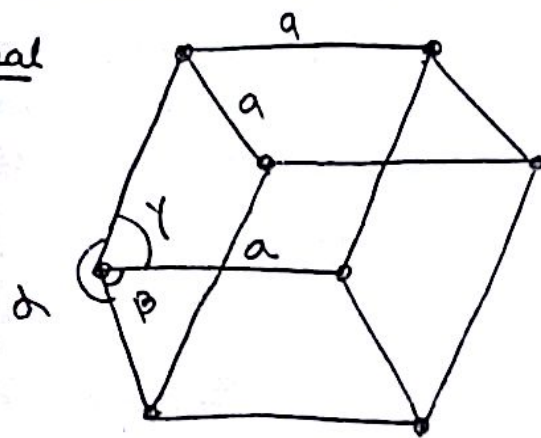
⑤ Triclinic: $\Rightarrow$ None of the axes are $\perp$ to the other axis $\alpha \neq \beta \neq \gamma$ and also all sides are of different length.
 These divided into subtypes. ex. K2Cr2O7

(i) Primitive

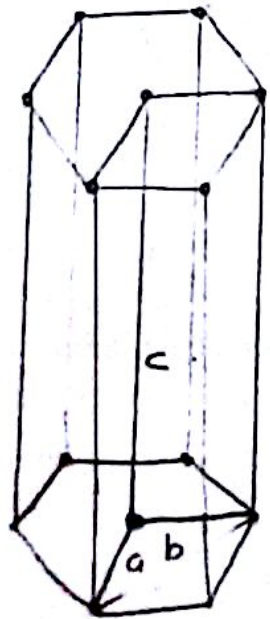


⑥ Trigonal: $\Rightarrow$ All sides are equal in this type of crystal But two angles are equal to 90° and another angle does not equal to the 90° . These crystal divided into 1 subtype ex- Arsenic, Bismuth, Sb, TeO_2

① Rhombohedral



⑦ Hexagonal crystals: $\Rightarrow$ In this crystal two sides are equal but another side are of different length from two sides. Two angles are of 90° and one angle is 120° . These divided into one subtype.



using stevings approx

$$\log_{10} x = \log_{10} y - x \log_{10} e - x$$

Translational Vectors: $\Rightarrow$ Mathematically a lattice is defined by a set of three non-coplanar vectors a, b and c such that the atomic arrangement looks exactly identical when viewed from any points $\vec{r}$ and $\vec{r} + \vec{r}_T$.

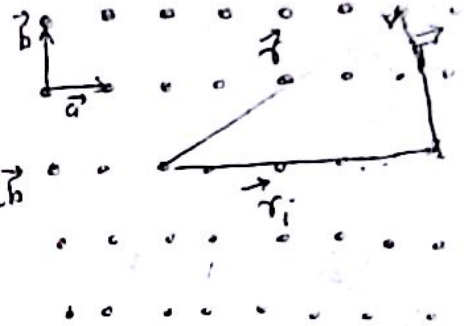
$$\vec{r}_1 = \vec{r} + \vec{T}$$

$$= \vec{r} + n_1 \vec{a} + n_2 \vec{b} + n_3 \vec{c}$$

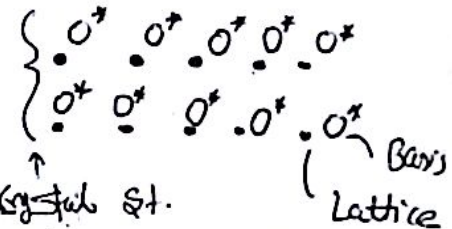
n_1, n_2, n_3 are integer

$$\vec{T} = n_1 \vec{a} + n_2 \vec{b} + n_3 \vec{c} \text{ in } 3D \Rightarrow \text{in } 2D \quad \vec{T} = n_1 \vec{a} + n_2 \vec{b}$$

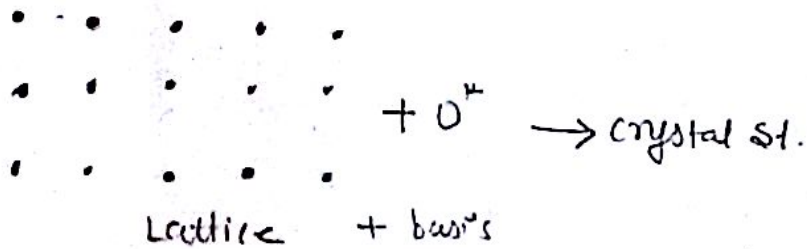
where a, b, c are primitive along the x, y & z axis respectively.



$\Rightarrow \text{Crystal Structure} = \overset{\text{space}}{\text{Lattice}} + \text{Basis}$
 $\downarrow \quad \quad \quad \downarrow$
 Real $\quad \quad \quad$ imaginary

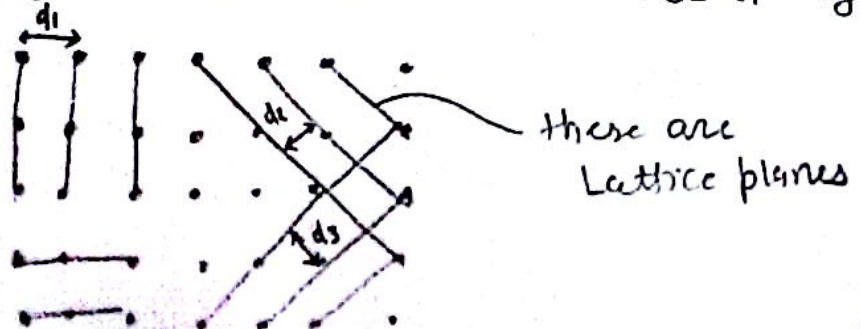


→ In the simplest crystal such as Cu, Ag, Na, etc there is single atom or ion associated with each Lattice pt. more often we say that however there is a gr. of several atoms associated with each Lattice pt. this gr. is called basis. Each basis is identical in composition, arrangement, orientation with any other basis.



→ Space Lattice is imaginary while (Crystal st. (Lattice + basis)) is real.

→ Lattice planes: ⇒ A crystal lattice is made of a large no. of parallel equidistant planes is known as lattice planes and can be chosen in a number of ways as shown in fig.



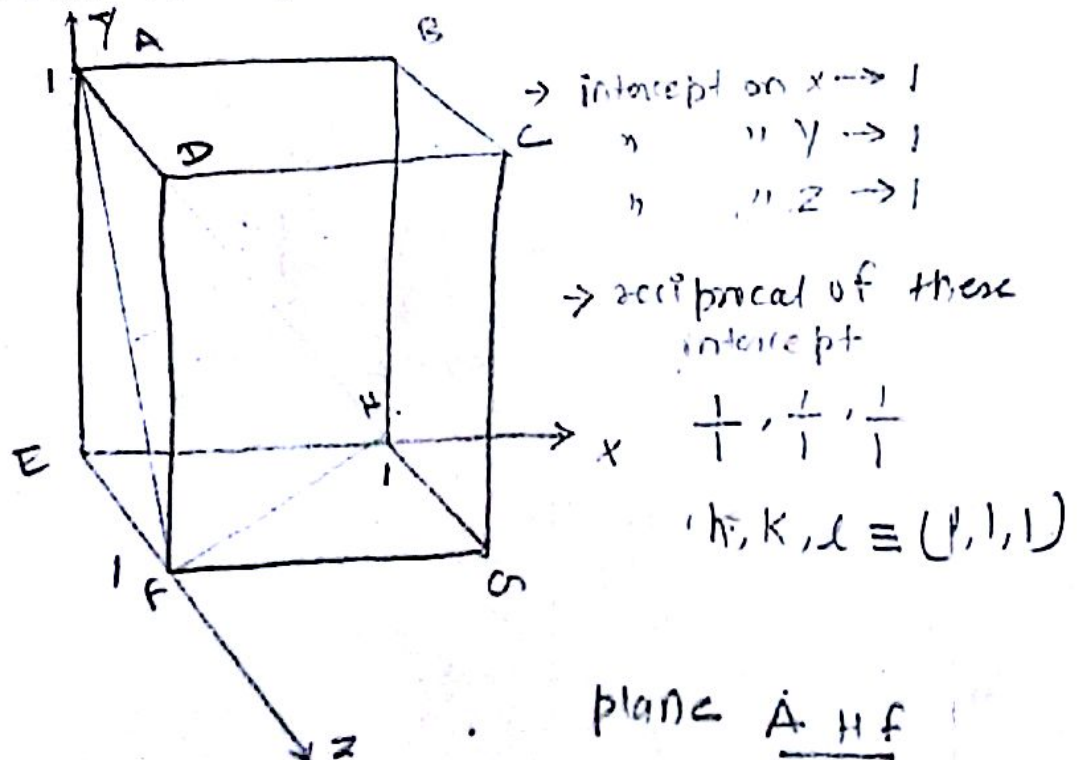
→ A given space lattice may have an aggregate set of ~~unequally~~ equally spaced planes passing through the lattice pt. these planes are called Lattice plane and the distance b/w the adjacent plane is interplanar spacing.
As shown in fig. there are 3 sets of Lattice plane d_1, d_2 and d_3 are the distance b/w two plane respectively.

→ Each set of plane accommodates all the Lattice point out of these. Only those which have high density of Lattice pt are significant and show diffraction of X-ray (Bragg's diffraction) these are called Bragg's plane or cleavage plane. When a crystal is struck, it easily breaks across these plane. Explain Miller Indices?

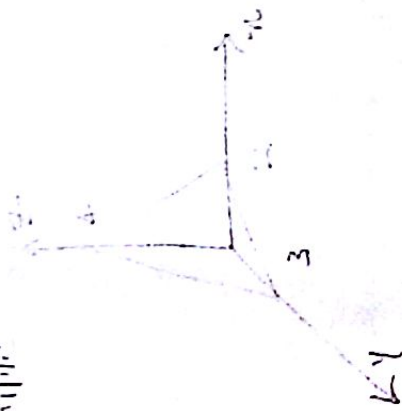
Miller INDICES ⇒ (Orientation of planes):

The Integer which determine the orientation of a crystal plane in relation to three crystallographic axes are called Miller indices. Miller indices are also called Crystal Indices.

→ Orientation of these plane in the crystal are determined by 3 smallest whole no. which have same ratios with one another as the reciprocal of the intercepts of the plane of the 3 crystal axes.



for example



$$\frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{2}$$

$$h, k, l \equiv (2, 2, 2)$$

plane $\rightarrow$ FGE

$$x \rightarrow 1 \quad \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{2}$$

$$y = \infty \quad h, k, l \equiv (1, 0, 0)$$

$$z = \infty$$

ACOG plane $\rightarrow$

$$x \rightarrow 0 \quad \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{2}$$

$$y \rightarrow 1 \quad (\infty, 1, 1)$$

$$z = 1$$

plane ABCD

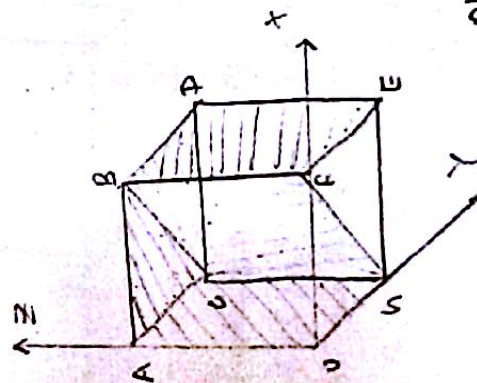
$$x \rightarrow \infty$$

$$y \rightarrow \infty$$

$$z = 1$$

$$\frac{2}{\infty}, \frac{1}{\infty}, \frac{1}{1}$$

$$(0, 0, 1)$$



plane $\underline{CBGF}$

$$x \rightarrow 1 \quad \frac{1}{1}, \frac{1}{1}, \frac{1}{\infty}$$

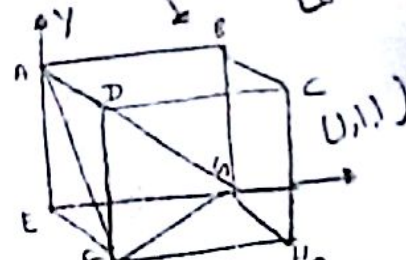
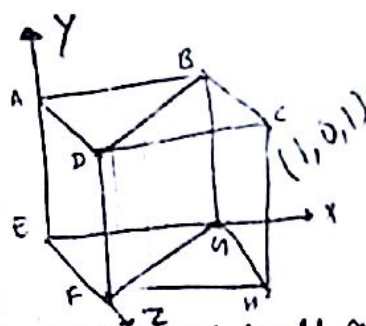
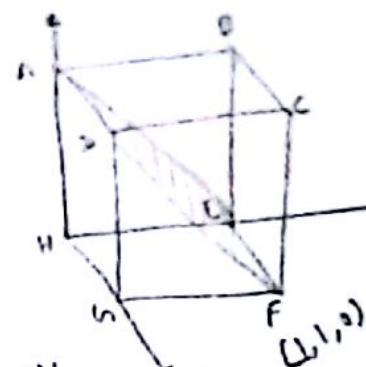
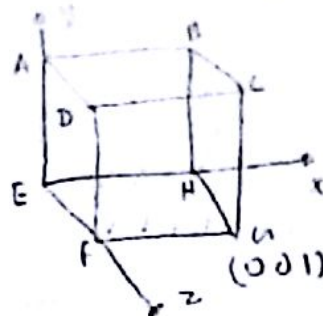
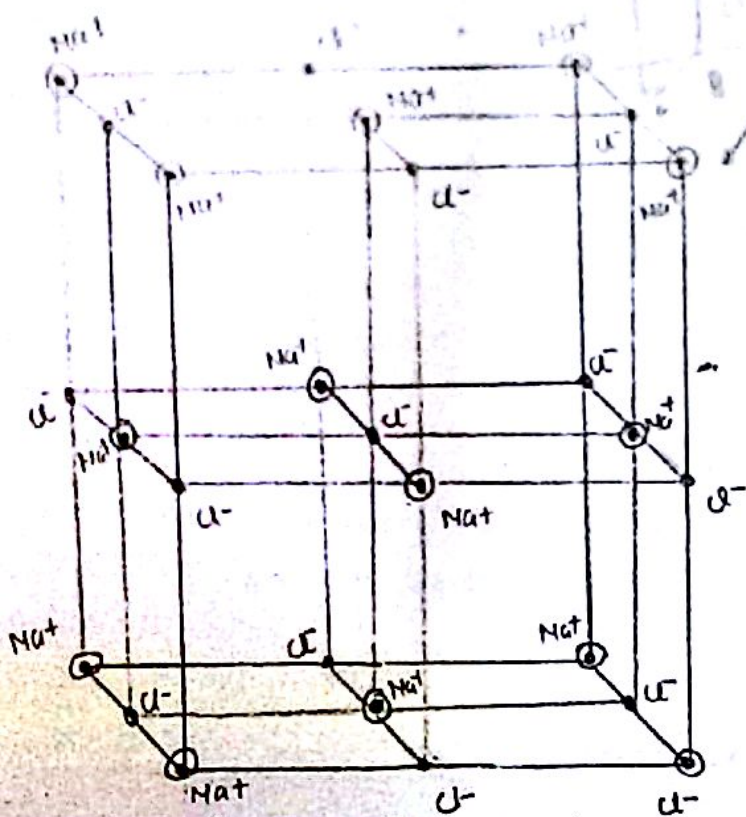
$$y = 1$$

$$z = \infty$$

$$h, k, l \equiv (1, 1, 0)$$

Simple crystal structures $\Rightarrow$

St of NaCl $\Rightarrow$



$\Rightarrow$ Main features of NaCl St.

1) $\Rightarrow$ In NaCl St Na^+ ion are situated at corner as well as center of the faces therefore we can say that Na^+ ion is FCC Lattice.

2) $\Rightarrow$ Each cell has 8 corners and 8 cell meet at the each of the corner hence $\frac{1}{8}$ atom belong to each cell also cation at the center of face is shared by two faces by two cells therefore $\frac{1}{2}$ ion belong of each cell.

$\rightarrow$ we have 8 corner and 6 faces therefore NaCl Lattice has four ion of the same kind and 4 ion of other kind each Na^+ ion has 6 Cl^- ion

3) $\Rightarrow$ The volume of each of unit cell is a^3 and the distance b/w 2 nearest neighbour $= \frac{a}{\sqrt{2}}$

iv) Each of Na^+ is attracted by 6 nearest Cl^- neighbours

v) The ex. of family KCl, LiI, PbS.

- ⇒ Determination of Lattice constant a from the molecular wt.
⇒ Relation b/w Density of crystalline material and Lattice constant.
if a = side of unit cell

$$\text{vol. of unit cell} = a^3$$

ρ = density of crystalline material

$$\text{density} = \frac{\text{mass}}{\text{vol.}}$$

$$\rho = \frac{\text{mass per unit cell}}{a^3}$$

$$\text{mass per unit cell} = a^3 \rho \quad \text{--- (1)}$$

M = molecular wt. of crystalline material

N = Avagadro's no.

$$\text{mass of each molecule} = \frac{M}{N} \quad \text{--- (2)}$$

If n (no. of molecule or atoms) is the no. per unit cell

$$\therefore \text{Total mass per unit cell} = n \frac{M}{N} \quad \text{--- (3)}$$

Comparing (1) & (3)

$$a^3 \rho = n \frac{M}{N}$$

$$\Rightarrow a^3 = \frac{n M}{N \rho}$$

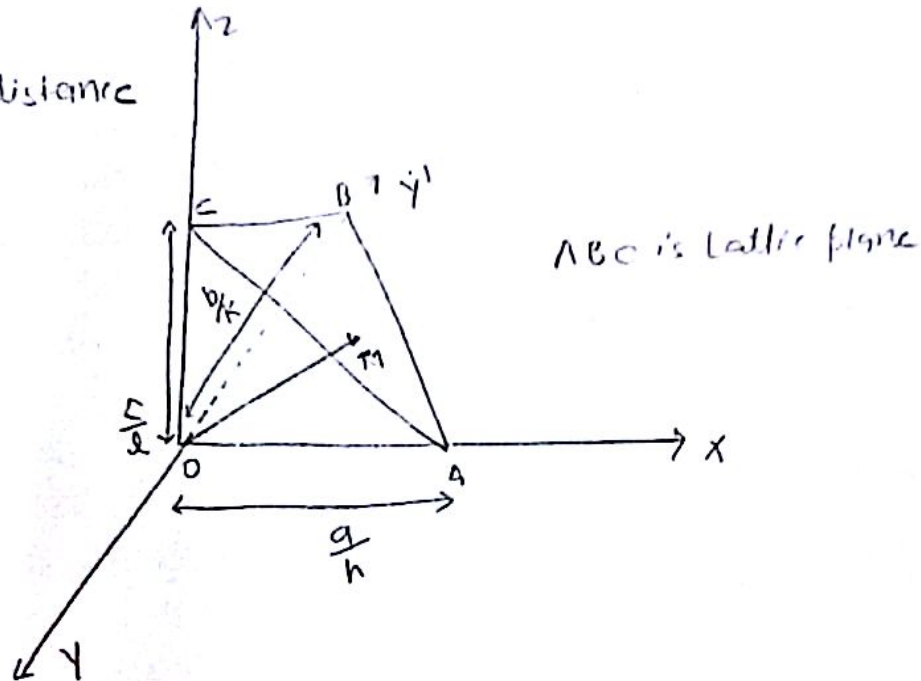
$$a = \left[\frac{n M}{N \rho} \right]^{1/3}$$

⇒ Derivation of interplanar spacing: ⇒

Interplanar spacing is the distance b/w two parallel lattice planes.
Interplanar spacing b/w planes of cubic lattice

ON = Normal distance

= d



Let the normal makes an angle α, β, γ with z axis and miller indices of the plane is h, k, l

$$\cos \alpha = \frac{ON}{OA} = \frac{d}{a/h} = \frac{dh}{a}$$

$$\cos \beta = \frac{ON}{OB} = \frac{d}{b/k} = \frac{dk}{b}$$

$$\cos \gamma = \frac{ON}{OC} = \frac{d}{c/l} = \frac{dl}{c}$$

for direction cosines

$$\cos^2 \alpha + \cos^2 \beta + \cos^2 \gamma = 1$$

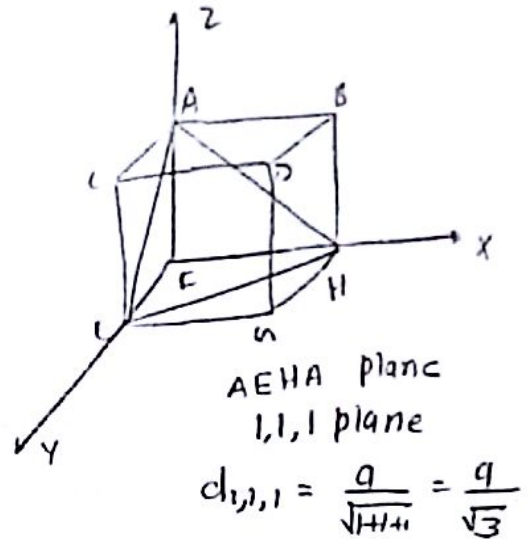
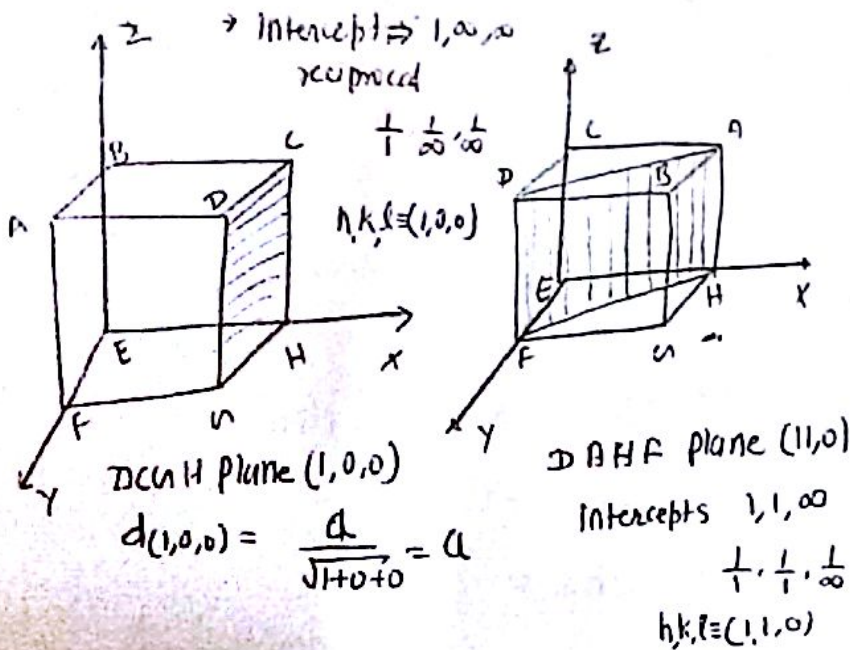
$$\frac{d^2 h^2}{a^2} + \frac{d^2 k^2}{b^2} + \frac{d^2 l^2}{c^2} = 1$$

$$d^2 \left[\frac{h^2}{a^2} + \frac{k^2}{b^2} + \frac{l^2}{c^2} \right] = 1$$

$$d = \frac{1}{\sqrt{h^2/a^2 + k^2/b^2 + l^2/c^2}}$$

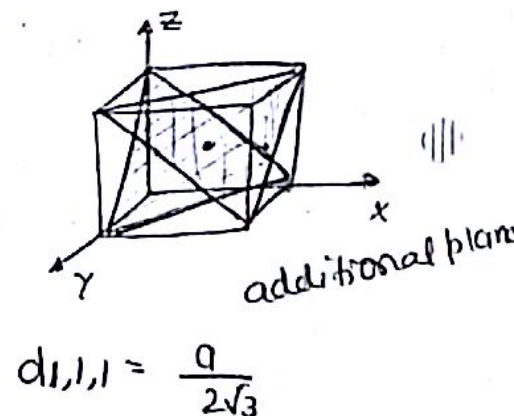
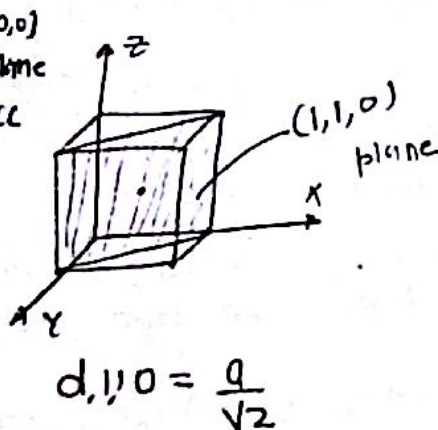
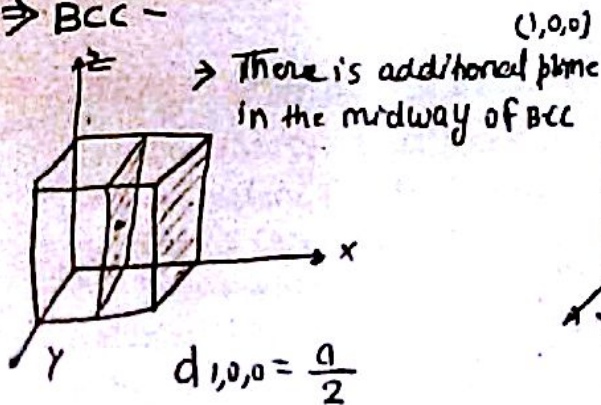
for simple lattice $a=b=c \therefore d = \frac{a}{\sqrt{h^2 + k^2 + l^2}}$

$\Rightarrow$ SCC



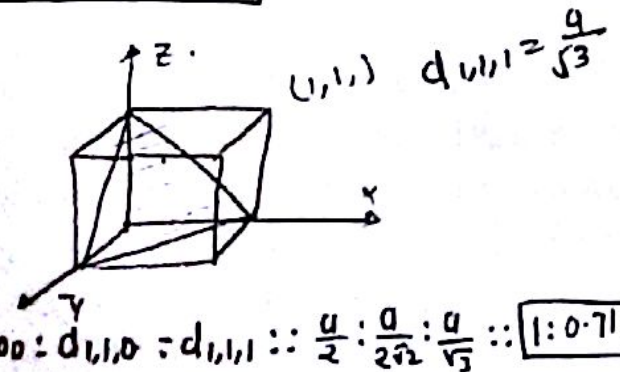
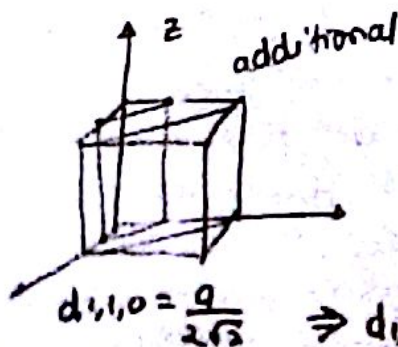
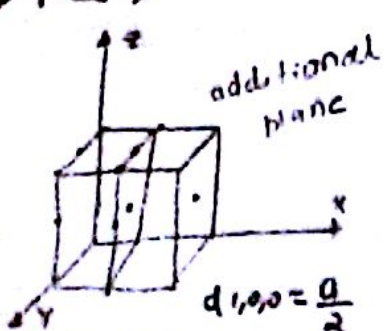
$\Rightarrow d_{1,0,0} : d_{1,1,0} : d_{1,1,1} \approx \frac{a}{1} : \frac{a}{\sqrt{2}} : \frac{a}{\sqrt{3}} :: 1 : \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} : \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}} :: \boxed{1 : 0.71 : 0.58}$

$\Rightarrow$ BCC -



$\Rightarrow d_{1,0,0} : d_{1,1,0} : d_{1,1,1} :: \frac{a}{2} : \frac{a}{\sqrt{2}} : \frac{a}{2\sqrt{3}} :: \boxed{1 : 1.414 : 0.58}$

$\Rightarrow$ FCC $\Rightarrow$



$\Rightarrow d_{1,0,0} : d_{1,1,0} : d_{1,1,1} :: \frac{a}{2} : \frac{a}{2\sqrt{2}} : \frac{a}{\sqrt{3}} :: \boxed{1 : 0.71 : 1.15}$

⇒ Bragg's x-Ray diffractions: ⇒ When a narrow beam of x-rays of wavelength λ is incident on the parallel planes of ^{of equal} angle θ . The x-rays scattered by the atoms of the crystal. Parallel lattice planes of the crystal are separated by a distance d . The incident x-rays get diffracted at angle θ at point O and B of the crystal planes.

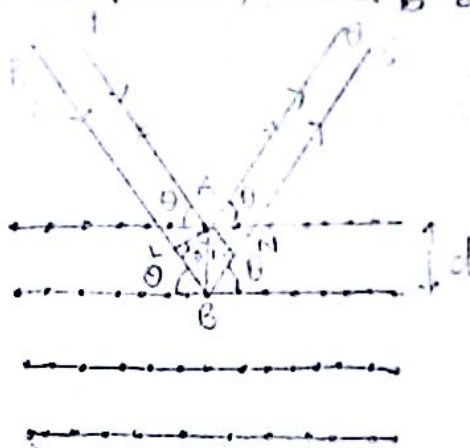
$$AB = d$$

Path difference b/w two diffracted rays

$$\text{Path difference} = BL + BN$$

$$= d \sin \theta + d \sin \theta$$

$$= 2d \sin \theta$$



for maxima

$$2d \sin \theta = n \lambda$$

where $n = 1, 2, 3, 4, \dots$

d = interplanar spacing

θ = glancing angle or grazing angle

→ For 1st order

$$\frac{n=1}{2d \sin \theta = \lambda}$$

$$\sin \theta = \frac{\lambda}{2d}$$

This relation is known as Bragg's law of diffraction. It is useful in calculating the distance d between crystal lattice planes once we know the wavelength λ of the x-rays and measure the angles of diffraction θ .

Bragg's condition ⇒

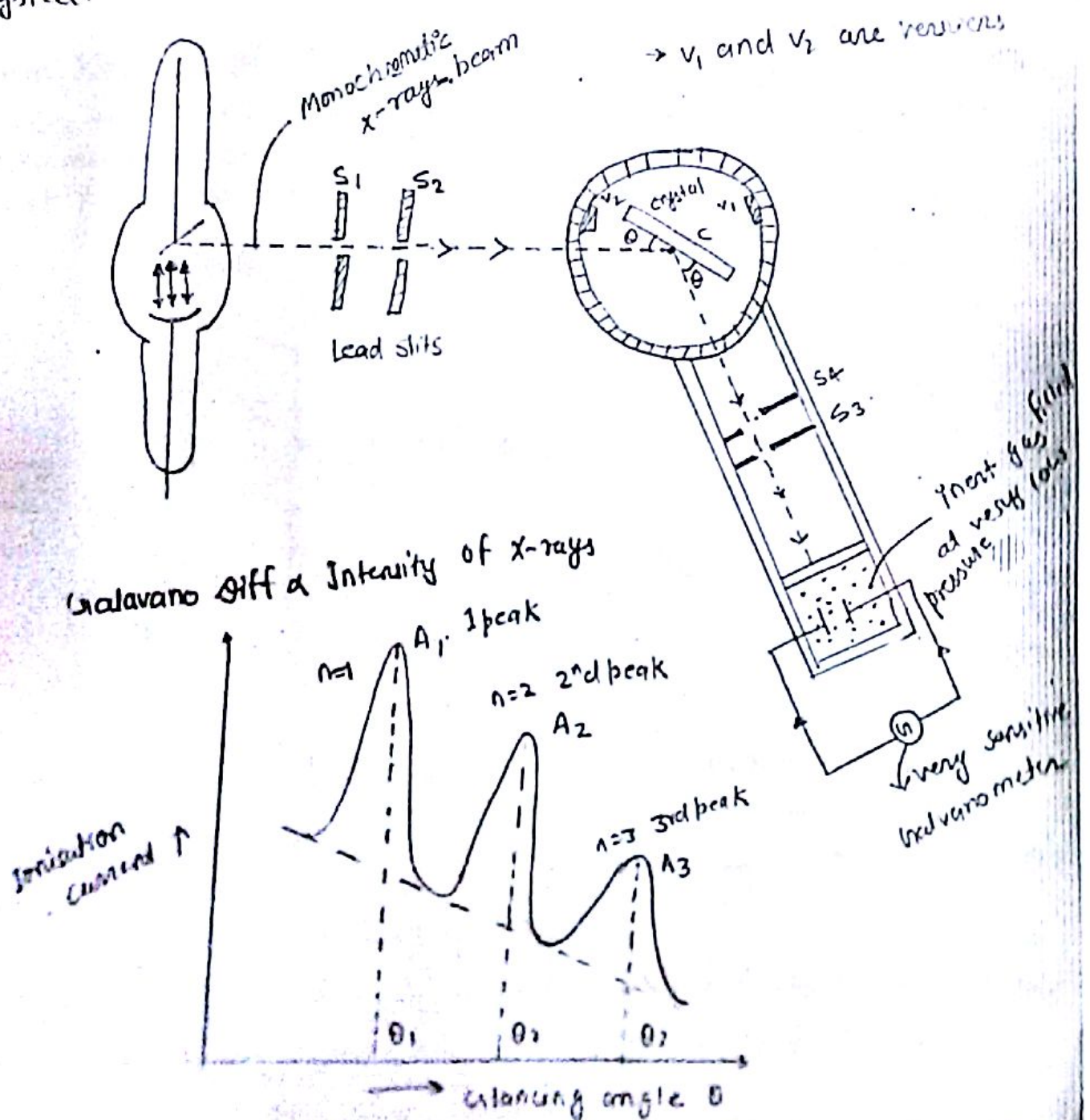
⇒ That every x-ray will not get diffracted by the atom of a crystal, only those will be diffracted whose wavelength λ and the angle θ exactly match this condition.

⇒ Bragg's x-ray spectrometer ⇒ [Laboratory experiment] ⇒

Bragg's x-ray spectrometer is used to study the glancing angle θ and intensities of diffracted x-rays for a given crystal.

A monochromatic x-ray beam from the source is passed through two slit S_1 and S_2 which divide it into a fine narrow beam. This x-ray beam is allowed to fall on crystal sample C mounted at the centre of a turn table. A movable arm is also attached to the turn table for detecting the diffracted x-rays beam from the crystal C . This turn table is capable of rotation about a vertical axis and the angle of

intensity can be measured on the circular scale. The rates of rotation of the turn table and the detector (ionisation chamber) arm are such that the ionisation chamber always receives the diffracted beam. When the turn table rotates through an angle θ the ionisation chamber arm automatically rotates through an angle 2θ with the direction of incident ray. This way the measurement of different diffracted x-ray beams' intensities and angles are recorded. Then using Bragg's condition we get the interplanar spacing and the d of the crystal.



$$\begin{aligned} \text{for } 1^{\text{st}} \text{ Order } \lambda_1 &\rightarrow 2d \sin \theta_1 = \lambda \\ n=2 \quad \lambda_2 &\rightarrow 2d \sin \theta_2 = \lambda \\ n=3 \quad \lambda_3 &\rightarrow 2d \sin \theta_3 = 3\lambda \end{aligned}$$

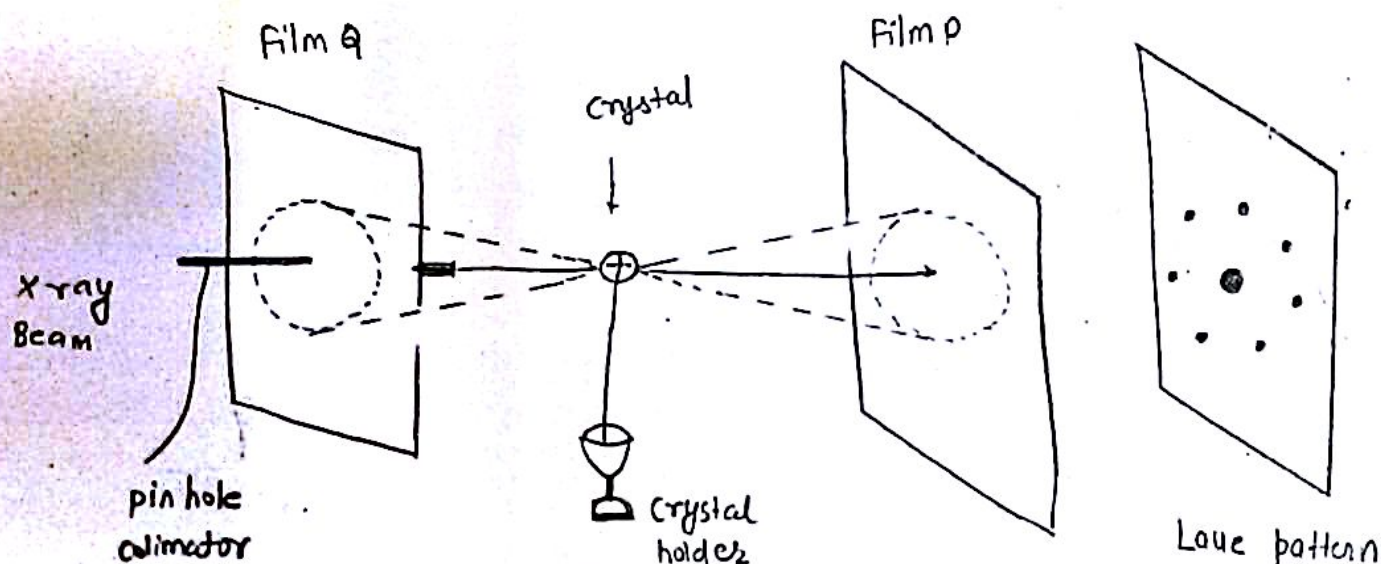
$$\sin \theta_1 : \sin \theta_2 : \sin \theta_3 = 1 : 2 : 3$$

⇒ Results : ⇒ As the Order of spectrum increases, intensity decreases.

(ii) The ionisation current does not fall to zero for any range of glancing angle θ . It is maximum for certain value. This shows the existence of continuous spectrum or which the characteristic line spectrum is superimposed.

⇒ Laue Method : ⇒

The Laue Method is useful for the determination of crystal structure. In this method a single crystal is held stationary in the path of an incident x-ray beam as shown in fig.



⇒ When a continuous x-ray through pin hole is allowed to fall on the crystal then this beam is diffracted by the crystal. The transmitted-diffracted and the reflected-diffracted beams are received by the films P and Q respectively as shown in fig.

The transmitted-diffracted beams form a series of spots which is the characteristic of the crystal itself and is called Laue pattern.

Peaks in the diffraction pattern correspond to the constructive interference for a set of crystal planes satisfying the Bragg's condition. For a particular wavelength selected from the beam of incident light. By studying the position and intensities of these peaks, the crystal structure can be determined.

⇒ Crystal Defect: ⇒

→ Ideal Crystal: ⇒ Any ideally perfect crystal is one in which atom and crystal are arranged in perfectly regular manner without any deviation. However it is impossible an ideal crystal without any defect in nature.

⇒ Defect: ⇒ Any deviation from the perfect periodicity is called defect in the crystal.

→ Real crystal has some defects out of the following defects:

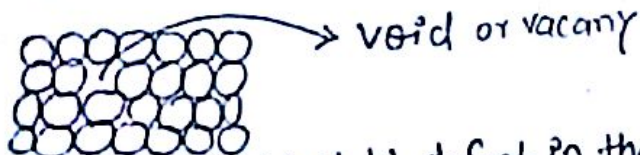
① Point Defect

② Line Defect

③ Surface Defect

→ ① Point Defect: ⇒ The deviation from periodically regular arrangement is localised only around a few atom then this type of defect in crystal is called point defects.

This produce a very localised perturbation in the regularity of the Lattice. The point defect produce strain in a very small region of a crystal around the defect but does not affect the regularity of distinct region. The pt. defect in a crystal may be in the form of impurity or in the form of vacancy.



⇒ Vacancy ⇒ A vacancy is the simplest pt. defect in the crystal this defect arises due to missing atom and vacant atomic site. The vacancy arises when the atom leave its site. Such defect are either due to the imperfect packing or during Original crystallisation or from thermal vibration of the atoms at high temp.

→ When the crystal is heated, the probability of the atom which jumps out of their position will increase. For most of the case the thermal energy is order of 1 eV per vacancy. This vacancy may be single or double.

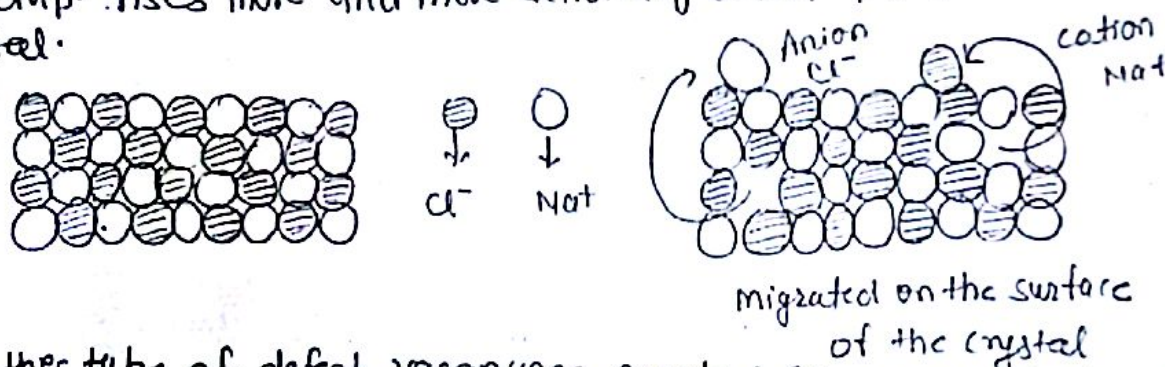
⇒ Interstitial ⇒ When atomic packing factor is low in a crystal i.e. an extra atom may be introduced in the crystal i.e. This extra atom can enter the interstitial space b/w the regularly arranged atom when it is smaller than the parent atom. It will produce atomic distortion.

hence the defect in which the extra atom enters in a interstitial space like the regular arranged atom of loosely packed crystals. It is known as Interstitial.

It is clear that vacancy and interstitial are opposite to each other.



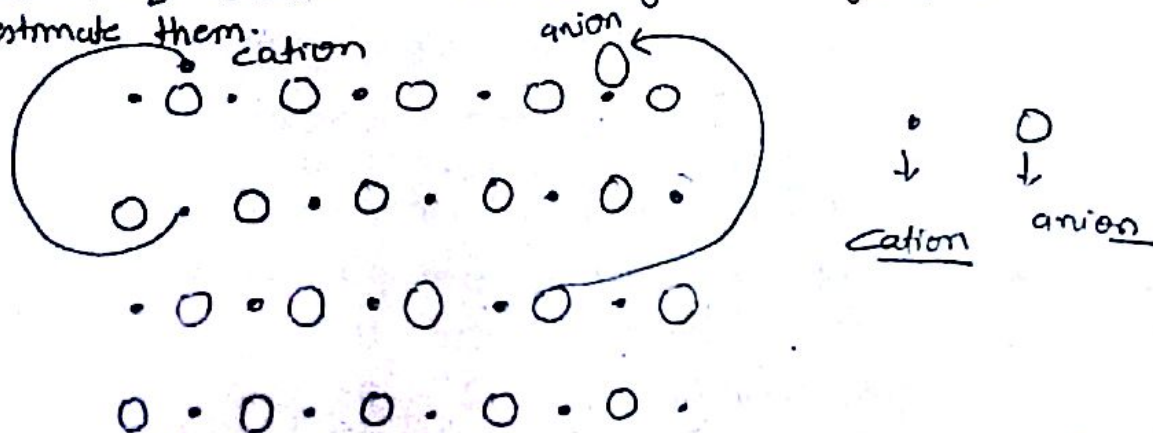
⇒ Schottky Defects: ⇒ These defects are generally found in ionic crystal and are usually produced as a result of thermal vibration. As temperature rises more and more Schottky defects are produced in the crystal.



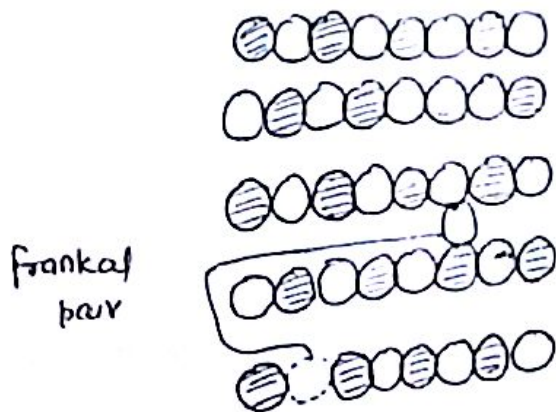
⇒ In this type of defect, vacancies are created in a crystal due to the migration of ion pairs to the surface of the crystal. Such defects always occur near the surface of the crystal.

→ These defects might be produced by plucking interior ions out of their regular sites and placing them on the surface. The process requires energy. It creates disorder, that's why entropy increases.

→ In thermal equilibrium, a certain number of vacancies are always present and we can estimate them.



⇒ Frankel Defects: ⇒ In this type of defects, an atom or ion is transferred from its lattice position to interstitial site, a pair which is not occupied by an atom, thereby a charged neutrality is maintained by having an anion in the interstitial position. This pair of vacancy & interstitiality is called Frankel defect.



⇒ Concⁿ of Frankel pair: ⇒

Let N_{ion} - pair

n - Frankel defects

(n anions or cations & n vacancy)

If W is the different no. of ways in which Frankel defects are arranged in the crystal.

$$W = \frac{N!}{(N-n)!n!} \times \frac{N_i!}{(N_i-n)!n!} \quad \text{--- (1)}$$

N → no. of ion pair

N_i → interstitial position of ions

Using Boltzmann's Entropy relationship

$$S = k_B \log_e W \quad \text{--- (2)}$$

$$\therefore S = k_B \log_e \left[\frac{N!}{(N-n)!n!} \times \frac{N_i!}{(N_i-n)!n!} \right] \quad \text{--- (3)}$$

→ If E_i is the energy required to move each Frankel pair defects

$$\therefore E = nE_i \quad \text{--- (4)}$$

By Gibbs free energy relationship

$$F = E - TS \quad \text{--- (5)}$$

$$E_i = k_B T \log_e \left[\frac{N!}{(N-n)! n!} \right] \left[\frac{N_i!}{(N_i-n)! n!} \right] \quad \text{--- (6)}$$

In thermal eq

$$\left(\frac{dE}{dn} \right)_T = 0$$

from (6) use to sterling approx

$$0 = E_i - k_B T \log_e \left[\frac{N-n(N_i-n)}{n^2} \right] \quad \text{--- (7)}$$

Since $N \gg n$
 $N_i \gg n$

from (7)

$$\frac{E_i}{k_B T} = \log_e \left(\frac{N N_i}{n^2} \right)$$

$$\therefore \frac{E_i}{k_B T} \approx \log_e(N N_i) - 2 \log_e n$$

Rearranging

$$\therefore \log_e n \approx \left[\frac{1}{2} \log_e(N N_i) - \frac{E_i}{2 k_B T} \right]$$

$$\therefore \left[n \approx (N N_i)^{\frac{1}{2}} e^{-\frac{E_i}{2 k_B T}} \right] \quad \text{--- (8)}$$

concn of Frenkel defects

→ This eqⁿ shows that Frenkel defects are directly proportional dependent even at room temp. Some Frenkel defects are always present.

This Eqⁿ shows that the temp for the concn of Frenkel defects is exponentially.

no. of Schottky defect in the ionic crystal.

(11)

If n is the no. of cation anion pairs

If n is the vacancy for cation

If n is the vacancy for anion

$\therefore$ No. of different ways

$$W = \left[\frac{N!}{(N-n)!n!} \right] \left[\frac{N!}{(N-n)!n!} \right]$$

Combined no. of ways to create vacancy in the ionic crystal $\swarrow$
 $\downarrow$ for cation the probability of vacancy created by the cation
 $\searrow$ for anion the probability of vacancy created by the anion

$$W = \left[\frac{N!}{(N-n)!n!} \right]^2 \quad \text{--- (1)}$$

By Boltzmann's entropy relationship

$$S = k_B \log_e W \quad \text{--- (2)}$$

where k_B = Boltzmann's const
 $= 1.38 \times 10^{-23} \text{ J/K}$

S = change in entropy

$$S = k_B \log_e \left[\frac{N!}{(N-n)!n!} \right]^2 \quad \text{--- (3)}$$

E_s is avg. energy req. to produce a Schottky defect in a pair of vacancy in the interior of the crystal

$\therefore$ Total Energy required = $n E_s$

This energy changes the internal energy of the lattice and free energy also change

$$F = E - TS \quad \text{--- (4)}$$

But $E = n E_s$

$$F = n E_s - T k_B \log_e \left[\frac{N!}{(N-n)!n!} \right]^2 \quad \text{--- (5)}$$

using Sterling's approx

$$\log_e x! = x \log_e x - x$$

$$\begin{aligned}
 &= 2 \left(N \log_e N - N - (N-n) \log_e (N-n) - n \log_e n \right) \\
 &= 2 \left(N \log_e N - (N-n) \log_e (N-n) - n \log_e n \right)
 \end{aligned}$$

from (4)

$$F = n \bar{E}_s - 2k_B T [N \log_e N - (N-n) \log_e (N-n) - n \log_e n] \quad \text{--- (7)}$$

for thermal equilibrium

$$\left(\frac{\partial F}{\partial n} \right)_T = 0$$

$$0 = \bar{E}_s - 2k_B T (0 - 0 + \log_e (N-n) - \log_e n)$$

$$= \bar{E}_s - 2k_B T \log_e \left(\frac{N-n}{n} \right)$$

$$\bar{E}_s = 2k_B T \log_e \left(\frac{N-n}{n} \right)$$

$$\log_e \left(\frac{N-n}{n} \right) = \frac{\bar{E}_s}{2k_B T}$$

$$\therefore \boxed{\frac{N-n}{n} = e^{\frac{\bar{E}_s}{2k_B T}}} \quad \text{--- (8)}$$

Approx In General $N \gg n$

$$\therefore N-n \approx N$$

$$\frac{N}{n} \approx e^{\frac{\bar{E}_s}{2k_B T}}$$

$$\boxed{n = N e^{-\frac{\bar{E}_s}{2k_B T}}}$$

$$\text{or } \boxed{n \approx N \exp \left[-\frac{\bar{E}_s}{2k_B T} \right]} \quad \text{--- (9)}$$

This eqn (9) gives the no. of Schottky defect in the ionic crystal at ordinary temperature.

→ At any temp with the help of this eqn we can calculate the conc of Schottky defect. This eqn is called conc of Schottky defect.